The Neolithic archeological records in Taiwan began around 3000-4000 BC with archeological assemblages of southern Chinese type, presumably carried initially by small

groups of agricultural settlers across the Formosa Strait from Fujian (Tsang 1992). Characteristic artifacts of the oldest sites include cord-marked pottery, polished stone adzes and slate spear points. Other items such as slate-reaping knives and baked clay spindle whorls (for spinning thread for weaving) perhaps arrived a little later. By 3000 BC in Taiwan there is evidence for rice and from pollen records for inland clearance for agriculture.

Between 2500 and 1500 BC related archeological assemblages with plain or red slipped pottery, rather than the older Taiwan cord-marked type, appeared in coastal and favorable inland regions of the Philippines, Sulawesi, northern Borneo, Halmahera and (with domestic pigs) to as far southeast as Timor. No sites of this period have yet been reported from the large islands of western Indonesia but research on pollen history in the highlands of western Java and Sumatra suggests that some fairly intensive forest clearance for agriculture was underway there by at least 2000 BC, and probably earlier (Flenly 1988). In the equatorial latitudes of Indonesia there may also have been a shift away from rice cultivation towards a much greater dependence on the tropical fruit and tuber crops listed above for PMP vocabulary. No cereals were ever introduced into the Pacific Islands, with the exception of rice to the Marians.

By 1500 BC, therefore, agricultural colonists had spread from Taiwan to the western borders of Melanesia. The continuing expansion through Melanesia western Polynesia, represented by the Lapita culture, seems to have been even more rapid than preceding movements, perhaps because food producing (as opposed to purely foraging) Papuan-speaking populations were already occupying some coastal regions of the large islands at New Guinea, the Bismarcks and the Solomons. Finely decorated Lapita pottery has been round in coastal or offshore island sites form the Admiralties in the west to Samoa in the east, a distance of about 5000 kilometers (see following chapters). This Lapita expansion occurred between 16000 to 1000 BC and to north and east of the Solomons it involved, for the first sustained period in the Austronesian prehistory, the settlement of theses uninhabited regions continued onwards (Irwin 1992), ultimately to incorporate all the islands of Polynesia and Micronesia and on the other side of the world, Madagascar.

"The Austronesians: Historical and Comparative Perspective"

This reading is a continuation of the previous excerpt from Peter Bellwood's study on the Austronesians. In this part, the focus is on the rationale behind the expansion and

migration of the Austronesians. For this, he cites seven possible reasons based on evidences of one of the most rapid colonization which occurred in the "Prehistoric agricultural word."

The rate of which the early Austronesian colonization occurred must surely be one of the most rapid on record from the prehistoric agricultural world, although admittedly much of it was across sea rather than into large and absorbent land mass. It was probably not caused simply by an over-reliance on land-hungry shifting cultivation, an explanation which I have favored in the past (Bellwood 1980b), but by a number of different stimuli. These include, not necessarily in order of significance:

(1) Continuous population growth based on an agricultural supply, allowing a continuous generation by generation "budding-off" of new families into new terrain.
(2) The inherent transportability and reproducibility of the agricultural economy to support colonizing propagules, especially on resource-poor small islands. (3) The presence of a deep and absorbent "frontier zone" available for colonization adjacent to the area of early Austronesians agricultural development, occupied purely by foraging populations (i.e. Taiwan and the Philippines in the early days of expansion), most of whom presumably have shown little interest to adapting a systematic agricultural economy for themselves.
(4) A developing tradition of sailing-canoe construction and navigation.
(5) A predilection for rapid coastal movement and exploration, probably to find the most favorable environments for cultivation and sheltered inshore fishing, and thus promoting a colonization pattern of wide-ranging settlements followed, often only centuries later, by territorial in-filling.
(6) A culturally-sanctioned desire to found new settlements in order to become a revered or even deified founder ancestor in the genealogies of future generations (presumably this evolved hand-in-hand with the colonization process itself);
(7) A desire to found new resources of raw materials for "prestige goods" exchange networks.

Not all of these stimuli were presented before the process of Austronesian expansion began; those listed at (4) and (6) particular surely evolve in part as a result of process itself, as might (7) if it was of major significance as an agency of colonization (which I doubt). However, it is my suspicion that the top root of the expansion process, a sine qua non, was the possession of a systematic agricultural economy capable of supporting continuous population growth.

The specific here may ask why, it agriculturally induced population growth was so important; all early agricultural peoples did not simply expand in this way. I would reply that perhaps the majority of them did, and this becomes highly significant if one takes the view that early agriculture was an uncommon development in a primary form (i.e as a result purely of local evolution from an indigenous foraging cultural base), restricted to only a very few specific environmental and floral/faunal regions of central Africa, southwestern Asia, China these early expansions, flourishing in a lightly populated, healthy and resource rich world, which laid the bases for the distributions of many of the major language families of the old World today. The environment plays major roles in the evolution of agriculture from a primary form.

"The Austronesians: Historical and Comparative Perspective"

The excerpt reading below is Peter Bellwood's summary and periodization of the Austronesian expansion. The periods are based of course on the major transformations of Austronesian societies upon settling in the Island Southeast Asia. The summary is useful inasmuch as it gives students of history a tool for understanding the different periods of transformation in Philippine as well as Southeast Asian prehistory.

Excerpt:

Perhaps I may finally sketch, in brief, some of the major transformations, which I believe prehistoric Austronesian societies underwent in Island Southeast Asia between about 1000 BC and AD 1.

(1) 4000-3500 BC; Initial Austronesian expansion to Taiwan; selded cereal and tuber agriculture, limited seafaring from South China.

(2) 3000 BC; Proto-Austronesian expansion to the northern Philippines; improvement of seafaring technology; stylistic shift from cord-market to plain or red-slipped pottery. (3) Late third and second millennia BC; Proto-Malayo-Polynesian dispersal from the southern Philippines to Borneo, Sulawesi and the Moluccas, equatorial enhancement of fruit and tuber production vis-à-vis cereals, except in more southerly and climatically-seasonal islands such as Java where rice is presumambly always maintained its prominence. One development of great interest which might have occurred about this time might have been the beginnings of forager adaptions to the rainforests of Borneo and Sumatra (see Sather, this volume).

(4) Second/first millennia BC? Beginnings of mobile maritime (proto-sea nomad?) adaptions around the Sulu and Sulawesi Seas (of Bellwood 1989 for a maritime economy with longdistance exchange at Bukit Tengkorak, Sabah, around 1000 BC), and possibly elsewhere. These, in turn might have laid some of the seafaring groundwork for:

(5) Middle and late second millennium BC: Lapita colonization of Remote Oceania to as far as Tonga and Samoa. Seafaring skills were here developed further amidst an ever expanding vista of uninhabited islands, but with few opportunities to settle on large western

Melanesian islands (especially New Guinea) already inhabited by Papuan speaking peoples.

(6) Second/first millennia BC? Austronesian settlement in Vietnam and Malaya, in both regions in competition with pre-existing agriculturists.

(7) 500 BC and after. Introduction of bronze and iron metallurgy into Island Southeast Asia. Dong Son drums were also traded from Vietnam into the Sunda islands, extending from Sumatra to the Southern Moluccas.

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Perhaps the metallurgical introductions listed last above were no more than side effects of something much greater; the incorporation of parts of Island Southeast Asia into a network of Old World trade stretching from the Mediterranean to eastern Indonesia. Indian pottery of c200 BC to AD 200 has now been unearthed in Java and Bali (Ardika and Bellwood 1991), and at the time the archeological records reveals a hitherto-unprecedented level of similarity in local potery design and manufacture across a huge region which includes coastal regions of the Sunda islands, borneo, Sulawesi and the Philippines. It is possible that a great deal of linguistic assimilation of prior (especially Old Malay itself), Javanese and perhaps other languages or subgroups (cf. Blust 1991 for the possibility of some kind of linguistic leveling in the Philippines). By AD 500 the Western Austronesian area was perhaps a zone of continuously flourishing inter-island travel and trade, with the odd proviso that divorced into an almost total isolation from the rest of Island Southeast Asia. Such are the enigmas of history.

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"Soul Boats: A Filipino Journey of Self-Discovery"

The following is an excerpt of an article originally published in the multi-volume Philippine Heritage in 1978. This particular edition was taken from the book by Alfredo E. Evangelista himself entitled "Soul Boats: A Filipino Journey of Self-Discovery" published in 2001. Alfredo E. Evangelista is the former head of the Anthropology Division of the National Museum of the Philippines and was its Deputy Director until his retirement in 1989. He studied anthropology at the University Chicago and was under the tutelage of archaeologist Wilhelm Solheim and H. Otley Beyer in his excavations in the Neolithic settlements in the Bondoc Peninsula, Masbate and later in Romblon. The essay discussed some of the archaeological evidences of jar burials and coffin burials in the Late Neolithic period in the Philippines. Of particular interest is the discussion on the so-called "soul boats" or wooden coffins shaped like boats found in different archaeological sites in the Philippines.

Excerpt:

Archaeological evidence and early ethnographic accounts by Spanish missionaries indicate that the disposal of the dead in hollowed-out wood has had a long tradition in the Philippines. It developed side by side with other forms of burial including the inhumation of corpses wrapped in mats or tree bark, and interment of corpses or skeletal remains (in jar containers) in caves or under the ground or in the open air. Where only the skulls were interred the container used were ornamented square boxes of either wood or baked clay, or simply slightly deep plates of both high and low-fired clay. In a few instances, as in a Central Philippine burial cave, coffin and jar-burial were practiced simultaneously.

Generally, the dug-out coffins were provided with lids triangular in cross-section, giving them the appearance of roofed boats. Consequently, they have been called "boat coffins." Extrapolation from ethnographic data referred to these coffins as "soul boats" used by the spirit to sail to the world of the dead. Archaeological evidence appears to support this stance. Even where the bones were those of adults, in a practice termed secondary burial, the elongated shape of the coffin and its pyramidal roof were retained. Its overall length, though, was reduced, the coffin appearing at first glance to be a child's. In a rock shelter in easter Masbate Island, for example, is a sawed-off banca with human skeletal remains in it. Being of recent interment, the burial boat was left undisturbed.

It appears further that the idea of burial in a box is as old as burial in a jar, as gleaned from recent archaeological activity in the Tabon Caves of Quezon, Palawan. In one of the chambers of a cave named Manunggul, a Late Neolithic jar-burial assemblage (C14 date: ca. 1000 B.C.) was carefully excavated and studied. Almost a hundred funerary pottery vessels and their associated artifacts constituted the assemblage. An outstanding find was a magnificently

decorated burial jar which had a cover featuring a "ship-of-the-dead with the figures of two humans riding in it. This is the oldest evidence linking spirits with watercraft. Another remarkable find in this same cave was a pottery coffin, 73 centimeters long and 34 centimeters wide. This is the first known coffin made of pottery.

In 1966, a report reached the Museum regarding a newly discovered burial using coffins. The informant claimed that he had explored the diorite formation for hidden pirates' treasure, about which he had read so much in books, and came upon a hole left by a fallen rock. He peeped into this hole and vaguely discerned a group of boxes that turned out to be coffins with human bones, ornaments and highly-fired ceramic wares. He collected some of the latter and brought them to Manila as proof of his discovery.

Of the 22 coffins counted, 17 were in perfect or good condition, the remainder being badly disintegrated, due to the depredations of the elements and termites. In common with the previous collections, the material for the coffins of the new site was also hardwood. Also common in both sites was the employment of the serpent motif carved a both ends of the lids. In some instances, the rendering was abstract, but in most cases the head, eyes, jaws and teeth were carved in the round. One head had a hollowed-out set of eyes, suggesting that artificial eyeballs were once embedded in them. In a number of cases, the tongue of the serpent jutted out or in its place was a carved figure of a human being halfway in the serpent's jaws, so that only the pelvic area and the lower limbs showed. Other motifs were those of the monkey and an unidentifiable four-legged animal, although these were not as commonly used as the serpent.

The coffins had been carved out of a species of hardwood locally called *mulawin* (*Vitex parvilora*), which was still obtainable in the island. From the coffins that still contained the skeletal remains of adults, it was concluded that the mode of burial was secondary, otherwise the corpses would not have fit into the coffins. In addition to the coffins, the workers recovered two Chinese brown-glazed stoneware jars that contained the bone remains of a juvenile in one and of an adult in the other. The site was evidence of the practice of jar-burial existing side by side with coffin-burial.

If the coffins and the bones were well preserved, so were the artifacts. The associated potteries from South China and Siam appeared to have just left the factory. As well-preserved were the beads of carnelian and glass, the bracelet of trochus shell and the ornaments of gold. Particularly exciting in the matter of preservation were the perishable artifacts that survived the elements. Of the Chinese jarlets, one still had a wooden stopper. Other perishable items included a coconut-shell cup bamboo artifact, and combs and bracelets of turtle shell. No other pre Spanish site has so far yielded such objects.

CHAO JU-KUA'S DESCRIPTION OF THE PHILIPPINES

The Following is an excerpt of Chao Ju-Kua's Account of Certain Barbarians written ca. 1280. Chao Ju-Kuya is a Chinese bureaucrat who travelled extensively in the world known to the Chinese in the 13th century. The reading was originally published as a translation into Spanish by Jose Clemente Zulueta in 1901. It contains descriptions of places and the peoples of Ma-yi which archaeologists and historians recognize as either Manila or Mindoro. The essay shows the early trading activities of the ancient Filipinos and their connection to the known world at that time. It also showed certain characters of the Filipinos as traders in the East and Southeast Asia.

Excerpt:

The country Ma-yi is located north of Poni. About one thousand families inhabit the shores of a river which has many windings. The natives dress in linen, wearing clothes that look like sheets; or they cover their bodies with *sarongs*. In the thick woods are scattered copper statues of Buddha, but no one can tell the origin of those statues. Pirates seldom visit those districts. When [Chinese] merchantmen arrive at that port they cast anchor at a place [called] the place of Mandarins. That place serves them as a market, or site where the products of their countries are exchanged. When a vessel has entered into the port, (its captain) offers presents consisting of white parasols and umbrellas which serve them for daily use. The traders are obliged to observe these civilities in order to be able to count on the favor of those gentlemen.

In order to trade, the savage traders are assembled, and have the goods carried in baskets, and although the bearers are often unknown, none of the goods are ever lost or stolen. The savage traders transport these goods to other islands, and thus eight- or nine-months pass until they have obtained other goods of value equivalent to those that have been received [from the Chinese]. This forces the traders of the vessel to delay their departure, and hence it happens that the vessels that maintain trade with Ma-yi are the ones that take the longest to return to their country.